

Module 83.1: Historical Risk and Return

SCHWESERNOTES - BOOK 4

LOS 83.a: Describe characteristics of the major asset classes that investors consider in forming portfolios.

An examination of the returns and standard deviation of returns for the major investable asset classes supports the idea of a tradeoff between risk and return. Using U.S. data over the period 1926–2017 as an example, shown in **Risk and Return of Major Asset Classes in the United States (1926–2017)(1)**, small-capitalization stocks have had the greatest average returns and greatest risk over the period. T-bills had the lowest average returns and the lowest standard deviation of returns.

Risk and Return of Major Asset Classes in the United States (1926–2017)¹

Assets Class	Average Annual Return (Geometric Mean)	Standard Deviation (Annualized Monthly)
Small-cap stocks	12.1%	31.7%
Large-cap stocks	10.2%	19.8%
Long-term corporate bonds	6.1%	8.3%
Long-term government bonds	5.5%	9.9%
Treasury bills	3.4%	3.1%

Inflation

2.9%

4.0%

Results for other markets around the world are similar: asset classes with the greatest average returns also have the highest standard deviations of returns.

The annual nominal return on U.S. equities has varied greatly from year to year, ranging from losses greater than 40% to gains of more than 50%. We can approximate the real returns over the period by subtracting inflation. The asset class with the least risk, T-bills, had a real return of only approximately 0.5% over the period, while the approximate real return on U.S. large-cap stocks was 7.3%. Because annual inflation fluctuated greatly over the period, real returns have been much more stable than nominal returns.

Evaluating investments using expected return and variance of returns is a simplification because returns do not follow a normal distribution; distributions are negatively skewed, with greater kurtosis (fatter tails) than a normal distribution. The negative skew reflects a tendency towards large downside deviations, while the positive excess kurtosis reflects frequent extreme deviations on both the upside and downside. These non-normal characteristics of skewness ($\neq 0$) and kurtosis ($\neq 3$) should be taken into account when analyzing investments.

Liquidity is an additional characteristic to consider when choosing investments because liquidity can affect the price and, therefore, the expected return of a security. Liquidity can be a major concern in emerging markets and for securities that trade infrequently, such as low-quality corporate bonds.

¹2018 SBBI Yearbook.

Module 83.2: Risk Aversion

SCHWESERNOTES - BOOK 4

LOS 83.b: Explain risk aversion and its implications for portfolio selection.

A **risk-averse** investor is simply one that dislikes risk (i.e., prefers less risk to more risk). Given two investments that have equal expected returns, a risk-averse investor will choose the one with less risk (standard deviation, σ). Financial models assume all investors are risk averse.

A **risk-seeking** (risk-loving) investor would actually prefer more risk to less and, given equal expected returns, would prefer the more risky investment. A **risk-neutral** investor would have no preference regarding risk and would therefore be indifferent between any two investments with equal expected returns.

Consider this gamble: A coin will be flipped; if it comes up heads, you receive \$100; if it comes up tails, you receive nothing. The expected payoff is $0.5(\$100) + 0.5(\$0) = \$50$. A risk-averse investor would choose a payment of \$50 (a certain outcome) over the gamble. A risk-seeking investor would prefer the gamble to a certain payment of \$50. A risk-neutral investor would be indifferent between the gamble and a certain payment of \$50.

When the expected returns on two portfolios are equal, a risk-averse investor will always prefer the less risky portfolio. Those who choose high-risk portfolios feel that the increase in expected portfolio returns is adequate compensation for their portfolio's higher risk.

LOS 83.c: Explain the selection of an optimal portfolio, given an investor's utility (or risk aversion) and the capital allocation line.

Investors' **utility functions** represent their preferences regarding the tradeoff between risk and return (i.e., their degrees of risk aversion). For example, a utility function might be expressed as follows:

$$U = E(r) - \frac{1}{2} A \sigma^2$$

Where:

U = utility

$E(r)$ = expected return

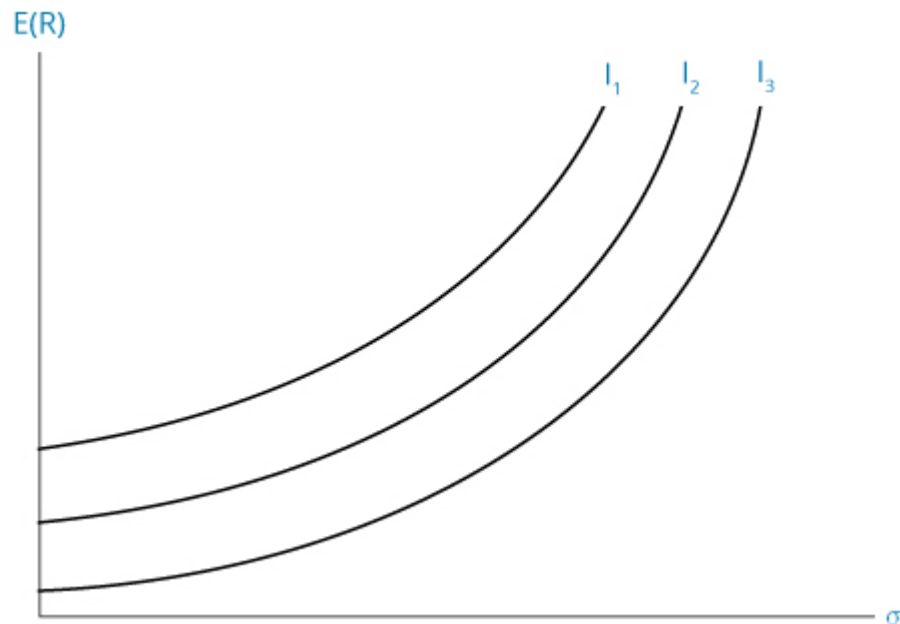
σ^2 = variance of returns

A = investor's degree of risk aversion

The more risk-averse an investor is, the greater the A in the investor's utility function. While a risk-neutral investor would have an A equal to zero and a risk-seeking investor would have a negative A , the theories of portfolio management we will discuss generally assume all investors are risk-averse (A greater than zero).

An **indifference curve** is a tool from economics that, in this application, plots combinations of risk (standard deviation) and expected returns among which an investor is indifferent. In constructing indifference curves for portfolios based on only their expected return and standard deviation of returns, we are assuming that these are the only portfolio characteristics that investors care about. In **Risk-Averse Investor's Indifference Curves**, we show three indifference curves for an investor. The investor's expected utility is the same for all points (portfolios) along any single indifference curve. Portfolios along indifference curve I_1 in **Risk-Averse Investor's Indifference Curves** are preferred to all portfolios along I_2 , which are preferred to all portfolios along I_3 .

Risk-Averse Investor's Indifference Curves



Indifference curves slope upward for risk-averse investors because they will only take on more risk (standard deviation of returns) if they are compensated with greater expected returns. An investor who is more risk averse requires a greater increase in expected return to compensate for a given increase in risk than a less risk-averse investor. In other words, the indifference curves of a more risk-averse investor will be steeper than those of a less risk-averse investor, reflecting a higher **risk aversion coefficient**.

In our previous illustration of efficient portfolios available in the market, we included only risky assets. Now we will introduce a risk-free asset into our universe of available assets, and we will examine the risk and return characteristics of a portfolio that combines a portfolio of risky assets and a risk-free asset. As we have seen, we can calculate the expected return and standard deviation of a portfolio with weight W_A allocated to risky Asset A and weight W_B allocated to risky Asset B using the following formulas:

$$E(R_{\text{portfolio}}) = W_A E(R_A) + W_B E(R_B)$$

$$\sigma_{\text{portfolio}} = \sqrt{W_A^2 \sigma_A^2 + W_B^2 \sigma_B^2 + 2W_A W_B \rho_{AB} \sigma_A \sigma_B}$$

Allow Asset B to be the risk-free asset and Asset A to be the risky asset portfolio. Because a risk-free asset has zero standard deviation and zero correlation of returns with those of a risky portfolio, this results in the reduced equation:

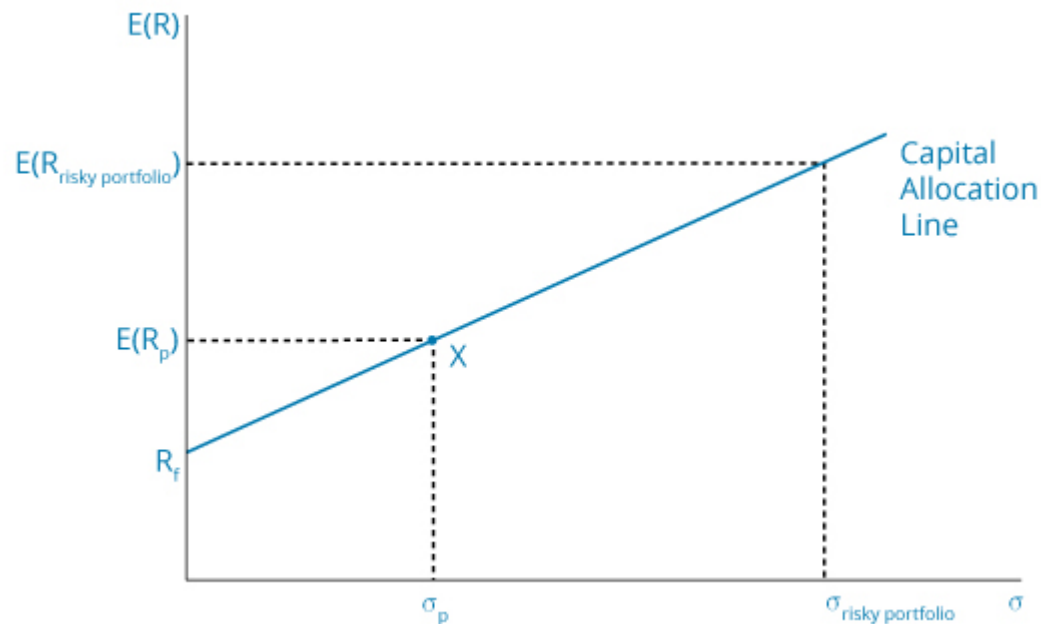
$$\sigma_{\text{portfolio}} = \sqrt{W_A^2 \sigma_A^2} = W_A \sigma_A$$

The intuition of this result is straightforward: If we put X% of our portfolio into the risky asset, and the rest into the risk-free asset, our portfolio will have X% of the risk of the risky asset. The relationship between portfolio risk and return for various portfolio allocations is linear, as illustrated in **Capital Allocation Line and Risky Asset Weights**.

Combining a risky portfolio with a risk-free asset is the process that supports the **two-fund separation theorem**, which states that all investors' optimal portfolios will be made up of some combination of the optimal portfolio of risky assets and the risk-free asset. The line representing these possible combinations of risk-free assets and the optimal risky asset portfolio is referred to as the **capital allocation line**.

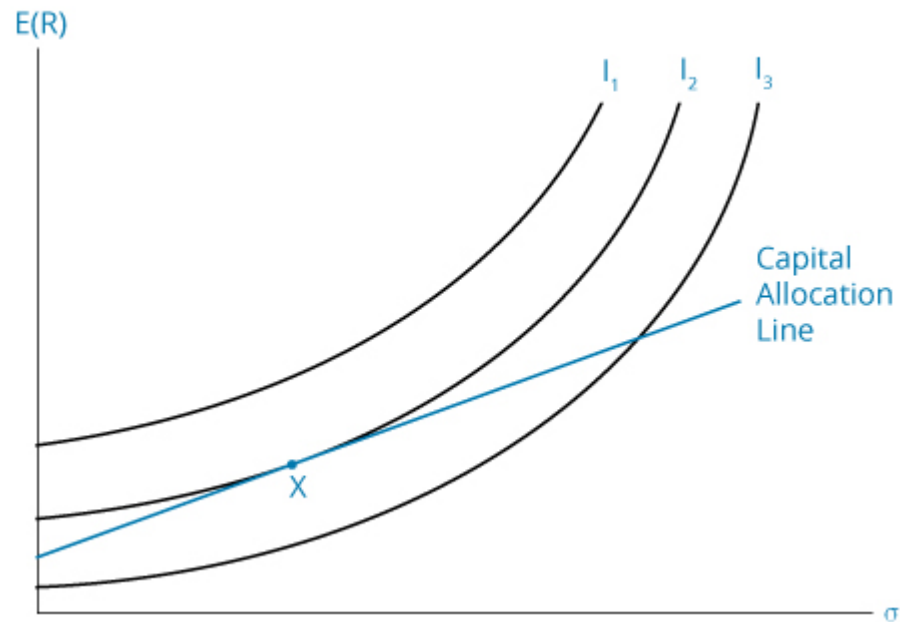
Point X on the capital allocation line in **Capital Allocation Line and Risky Asset Weights** represents a portfolio that is 40% invested in the risky asset portfolio and 60% invested in the risk-free asset. Its expected return will be $0.40[E(R_{\text{risky asset portfolio}})] + 0.60(R_f)$, and its standard deviation will be $0.40(\sigma_{\text{risky asset portfolio}})$.

Capital Allocation Line and Risky Asset Weights



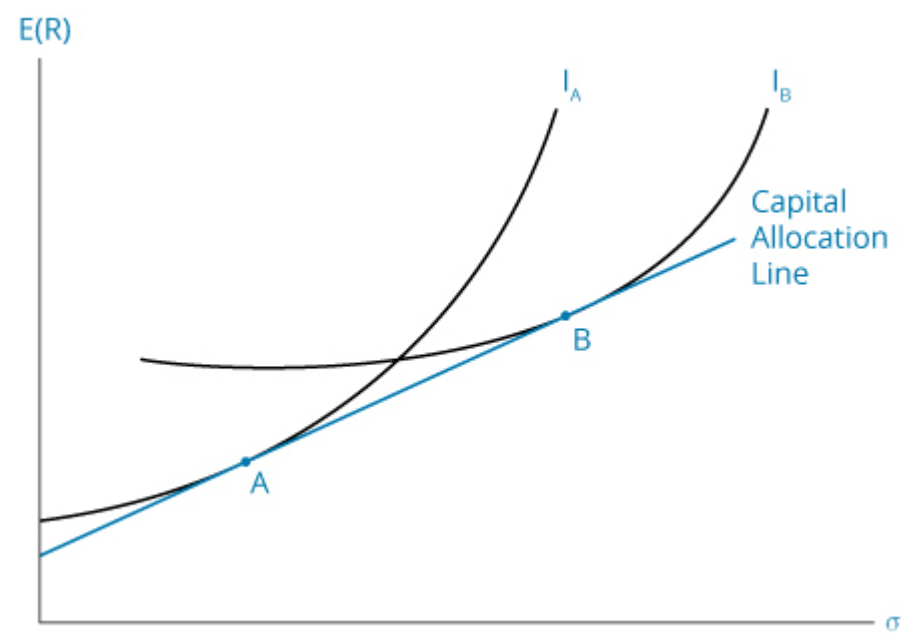
Now that we have constructed a set of the possible efficient portfolios (the capital allocation line), we can combine this with indifference curves representing an individual's preferences for risk and return to illustrate the logic of selecting an optimal portfolio (i.e., one that maximizes the investor's expected utility). In **Risk-Averse Investor's Indifference Curves**, we can see that Investor A, with preferences represented by indifference curves I_1 , I_2 , and I_3 , can reach the level of expected utility on I_2 by selecting Portfolio X. This is the optimal portfolio for this investor, as any portfolio that lies on I_2 is preferred to all portfolios that lie on I_3 (and in fact to any portfolios that lie between I_2 and I_3). Portfolios on I_1 are preferred to those on I_2 , but none of the portfolios that lie on I_1 are available in the market.

Risk-Averse Investor's Indifference Curves



The final result of our analysis here is not surprising; investors who are less risk averse will select portfolios with more risk. Recall that the lower an investor's risk aversion, the flatter his indifference curves. As illustrated in **Portfolio Choices Based on Two Investors' Indifference Curves**, the flatter indifference curve for Investor B (I_B) results in an optimal (tangency) portfolio that lies to the right of the one that results from a steeper indifference curve, such as that for Investor A (I_A). An investor who is less risk averse should optimally choose a portfolio with more invested in the risky asset portfolio and less invested in the risk-free asset.

Portfolio Choices Based on Two Investors' Indifference Curves



Module 83.3: Portfolio Standard Deviation

SCHWESERNOTES - BOOK 4

LOS 83.d: Calculate and interpret the mean, variance, and covariance (or correlation) of asset returns based on historical data.

Variance (Standard Deviation) of Returns for an Individual Security

In finance, the variance and standard deviation of returns are common measures of investment risk. Both of these are measures of the variability of a distribution of returns about its mean or expected value.

We can calculate the population variance, σ^2 , when we know the return R_t for each period, the total number periods (T), and the mean or expected value of the population's distribution (μ), as follows:

$$\sigma^2 = \frac{\sum_{t=1}^T (R_t - \mu)^2}{T}$$

In the world of finance, we are typically analyzing only a sample of returns data, rather than the entire population. To calculate sample variance, s^2 , using a sample of T historical returns and the mean, $\bar{R}$, of the observations, we use the following formula:

$$s^2 = \frac{\sum_{t=1}^T (R_t - \bar{R})^2}{T-1}$$

Covariance and Correlation of Returns for Two Securities

Covariance measures the extent to which two variables move together over time. A positive covariance means that the variables (e.g., rates of return on two stocks) tend to move together. Negative covariance means that the two variables tend to move in opposite directions. A covariance of zero means there is no linear relationship between the two variables. To put it another way, if the covariance of returns between two assets is zero, knowing the return for the next period on one of the assets tells you nothing about the return of the other asset for the period.

Here we will focus on the calculation of the covariance between two assets' returns using historical data. The calculation of the sample covariance is based on the following formula:

$$\text{Cov}_{1,2} = \frac{\sum_{t=1}^n \{ [R_{t,1} - \bar{R}_1] [R_{t,2} - \bar{R}_2] \}}{n-1}$$

where:

$R_{t,1}$ = return on Asset 1 in period t

$R_{t,2}$ = return on Asset 2 in period t

$\bar{R}_1$ = mean return on Asset 1

$\bar{R}_2$ = mean return on Asset 2

n = number of periods

The magnitude of the covariance depends on the magnitude of the individual stocks' standard deviations and the relationship between their co-movements. Covariance is an absolute measure and is measured in return units squared.

The covariance of the returns of two securities can be standardized by dividing by the product of the standard deviations of the two securities. This standardized measure of co-movement is called **correlation** and is computed as:

$$\rho_{1,2} = \frac{\text{Cov}_{1,2}}{\sigma_1 \sigma_2}$$

The relation can also be written as:

$$\text{Cov}_{1,2} = \rho_{1,2} \sigma_1 \sigma_2$$

The term $\rho_{1,2}$ is called the *correlation coefficient* between the returns of securities 1 and 2. The correlation coefficient has no units. It is a pure measure of the co-movement of the two stocks' returns and is bounded by -1 and +1.

How should you interpret the correlation coefficient?

- A correlation coefficient of +1 means that deviations from the mean or expected return are always proportional in the same direction. That is, they are perfectly positively correlated.
- A correlation coefficient of -1 means that deviations from the mean or expected return are always proportional in opposite directions. That is, they are perfectly negatively correlated.
- A correlation coefficient of zero means that there is no linear relationship between the two stocks' returns. They are uncorrelated. One way to interpret a correlation (or covariance) of zero is that, in any period, knowing the actual value of one variable tells you nothing about the value of the other.

Example: Calculating mean return, returns variance, returns covariance, and correlation

Given three years of percentage returns for Assets A and B in the following table, calculate the mean return and sample standard deviation for each asset, the sample covariance, and the correlation of returns.

Year	Asset A	Asset B
1	5%	7%

2	-2%	-4%
3	12%	18%

Answer:

mean return for Asset A = $(5\% - 2\% + 12\%) / 3 = 5\%$

mean return for Asset B = $(7\% - 4\% + 18\%) / 3 = 7\%$

sample variance of returns for Asset A = $\frac{(5 - 5)^2 + (-2 - 5)^2 + (12 - 5)^2}{3 - 1} = 49$

sample standard deviation for Asset A = $\sqrt{49} = 7\%$

sample variance of returns for Asset B = $\frac{(7 - 7)^2 + (-4 - 7)^2 + (18 - 7)^2}{3 - 1} = 121$

sample standard deviation for Asset B = $\sqrt{121} = 11\%$

sample covariance of returns for Assets A and B = $\frac{(5 - 5)(7 - 7) + (-2 - 5)(-4 - 7) + (12 - 5)(18 - 7)}{3 - 1} = 77$

correlation of returns for Assets A and B = $\frac{77}{7 \times 11} = 1$

In this example, the returns on Assets A and B are perfectly positively correlated.

LOS 83.e: Calculate and interpret portfolio standard deviation.

The variance of returns for a portfolio of two risky assets is calculated as follows:

$$\text{Var}_{\text{portfolio}} = w_1^2 \sigma_1^2 + w_2^2 \sigma_2^2 + 2w_1 w_2 \text{Cov}_{12}$$

where w_1 is the proportion of the portfolio invested in Asset 1, and w_2 is the proportion of the portfolio invested in Asset 2. w_2 must equal $(1 - w_1)$.

Previously, we established that the correlation of returns for two assets is calculated as:

$$\rho_{12} = \frac{\text{Cov}_{12}}{\sigma_1 \sigma_2}, \text{ so that we can also write } \text{Cov}_{12} = \rho_{12} \sigma_1 \sigma_2.$$

Substituting this term for Cov_{12} in the formula for the variance of returns for a portfolio of two risky assets, we have the following:

$$\text{Var}_{\text{portfolio}} = w_1^2 \sigma_1^2 + w_2^2 \sigma_2^2 + 2w_1 w_2 \rho_{12} \sigma_1 \sigma_2$$

Because $\text{Var}_{\text{portfolio}} = \sigma_{\text{portfolio}}^2$, this can also be written as:

$$\sigma_{\text{portfolio}} = \sqrt{w_1^2 \sigma_1^2 + w_2^2 \sigma_2^2 + 2w_1 w_2 \rho_{12} \sigma_1 \sigma_2}$$

Writing the formula in this form allows us to easily see the effect of the correlation of returns between the two assets on portfolio risk.

Example: Calculating portfolio standard deviation

A portfolio is 30% invested in stocks that have a standard deviation of returns of 20% and is 70% invested in bonds that have a standard deviation of returns of 12%. The correlation of bond returns with stock returns is 0.60. What is the standard deviation of portfolio returns? What would it be if stock and bond returns were perfectly positively correlated?

Answer:

$$\text{portfolio standard deviation} = \sqrt{(0.3^2)(0.2^2) + (0.7^2)(0.12^2) + 2(0.3)(0.7)(0.6)(0.2)(0.12)} = 12.9\%$$

If stock and bond returns were perfectly positively correlated, portfolio standard deviation would simply be the weighted average of the assets' standard deviations: $0.3(20\%) + 0.7(12\%) = 14.4\%$.

Module 83.4: The Efficient Frontier

SCHWESERNOTES - BOOK 4

LOS 83.f: Describe the effect on a portfolio's risk of investing in assets that are less than perfectly correlated.

If two risky asset returns are perfectly positively correlated, $\rho_{12} = +1$, then the square root of portfolio variance (the portfolio standard deviation of returns) is equal to:

$$\sigma_{\text{portfolio}} = \sqrt{\text{Var}_{\text{portfolio}}} = \sqrt{w_1^2\sigma_1^2 + w_2^2\sigma_2^2 + 2w_1w_2\sigma_1\sigma_2(1)} = w_1\sigma_1 + w_2\sigma_2$$

Professor's Note

This might be easier to see by examining the algebra in reverse. If $w_1\sigma_1 + w_2\sigma_2$ equals the square root of the term under the radical in this special case, then $(w_1\sigma_1 + w_2\sigma_2)^2$ should equal the term under the radical. If we expand $(w_1\sigma_1 + w_2\sigma_2)^2$, we get:

$$\begin{aligned}(w_1\sigma_1 + w_2\sigma_2)^2 &= (w_1\sigma_1)^2 + (w_1\sigma_1)(w_2\sigma_2) + (w_2\sigma_2)(w_1\sigma_1) + (w_2\sigma_2)^2 \\ &= (w_1\sigma_1)^2 + (w_2\sigma_2)^2 + 2(w_1\sigma_1)(w_2\sigma_2) \\ &= w_1^2\sigma_1^2 + w_2^2\sigma_2^2 + 2w_1\sigma_1w_2\sigma_2\end{aligned}$$

In this unique case, with $\rho_{12} = 1$, the portfolio standard deviation is simply a weighted average of the standard deviations of the individual asset returns. A portfolio 25% invested in Asset 1 and 75% invested in Asset 2 will have a

standard deviation of returns equal to 25% of the standard deviation (σ_1) of Asset 1's return, plus 75% of the standard deviation (σ_2) of Asset 2's return.

Focusing on returns correlation, we can see that the greatest portfolio risk results when the correlation between asset returns is +1. For any value of correlation less than +1, portfolio variance is reduced. Note that for a correlation of zero, the entire third term in the portfolio variance equation is zero. For negative values of correlation ρ_{12} , the third term becomes negative and further reduces portfolio variance and standard deviation.

We will illustrate this property with an example.

Example: Portfolio risk as correlation varies

Consider two risky assets that have returns variances of 0.0625 and 0.0324, respectively. The assets' standard deviations of returns are then 25% and 18%, respectively. Calculate the variances and standard deviations of portfolio returns for an equal-weighted portfolio of the two assets when their correlation of returns is 1, 0.5, 0, and -0.5.

The calculations are as follows:

$$\text{variance}_{\text{portfolio}} = w_1^2 \sigma_1^2 + w_2^2 \sigma_2^2 + 2w_1 w_2 \rho_{12} \sigma_1 \sigma_2$$

$$\sigma_{\text{portfolio}} = \sqrt{\text{variance}_{\text{portfolio}}}$$

$$\sigma_{\text{portfolio}} = \sqrt{w_1^2 \sigma_1^2 + w_2^2 \sigma_2^2 + 2w_1 w_2 \rho_{12} \sigma_1 \sigma_2}$$

ρ = correlation = +1:

$$\sigma = \text{portfolio standard deviation} = 0.5(25\%) + 0.5(18\%) = \mathbf{21.5\%}$$

$$\sigma^2 = \text{portfolio variance} = 0.215^2 = 0.046225$$

ρ = correlation = 0.5:

$$\sigma^2 = (0.5^2)0.0625 + (0.5^2)0.0324 + 2(0.5)(0.5)(\mathbf{0.5})(0.25)(0.18) = 0.034975$$

$$\sigma = \mathbf{18.70\%}$$

ρ = correlation = 0:

$$\sigma^2 = (0.5^2)0.0625 + (0.5^2)0.0324 = 0.023725$$

$$\sigma = \mathbf{15.40\%}$$

ρ = correlation = -0.5:

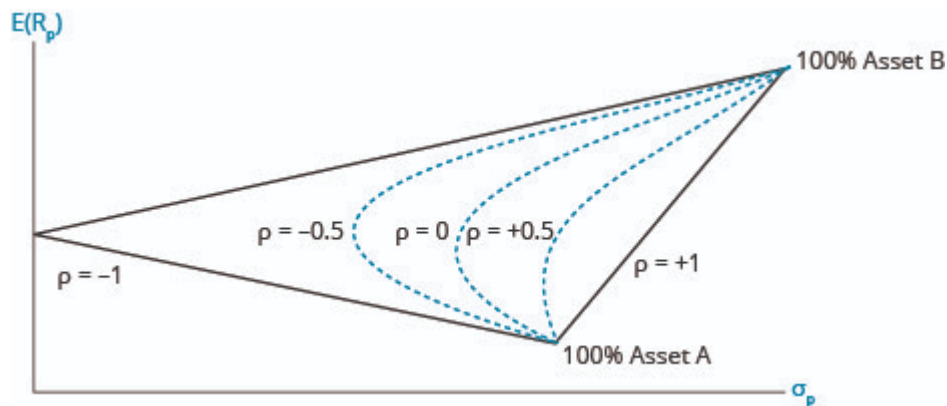
$$\sigma^2 = (0.5^2)0.0625 + (0.5^2)0.0324 + 2(0.5)(0.5)(\mathbf{-0.5})(0.25)(0.18) = 0.012475$$

$$\sigma = \mathbf{11.17\%}$$

Note that portfolio risk decreases as the correlation between the assets' returns decreases. This is an important result of the analysis of portfolio risk: The lower the correlation of asset returns, the greater the risk reduction (diversification) benefit of combining assets in a portfolio. If asset returns were perfectly negatively correlated, portfolio risk could be eliminated altogether for a specific set of asset weights.

We show these relations graphically in **Risk and Return for Different Values of ρ** by plotting the portfolio risk and return for all portfolios of two risky assets, for specific values of the assets' returns correlation.

Risk and Return for Different Values of ρ



From these analyses, the risk reduction benefits of investing in assets with low return correlations should be clear. The desire to reduce risk is what drives investors to invest in not just domestic stocks, but also bonds, foreign stocks, real estate, and other asset classes.

LOS 83.g: Describe and interpret the minimum-variance and efficient frontiers of risky assets and the global minimum-variance portfolio.

For each level of expected portfolio return, we can vary the portfolio weights on the individual assets to determine the portfolio that has the least risk. These portfolios that have the lowest standard deviation of all portfolios with a given expected return are known as **minimum-variance portfolios**. Together they make up the **minimum-variance frontier**.

Assuming that investors are risk averse, investors prefer the portfolio that has the greatest expected return when choosing among portfolios that have the same standard deviation of returns. Those portfolios that have the greatest expected return for each level of risk (standard deviation) make up the **efficient frontier**. The efficient frontier coincides with the top portion of the minimum-variance frontier. A risk-averse investor would only choose portfolios that are on the efficient frontier because all available portfolios that are not on the efficient frontier have lower expected returns than an efficient portfolio with the same risk. The portfolio on the efficient frontier that has the least risk is the **global minimum-variance portfolio**.

These concepts are illustrated in **Minimum-Variance and Efficient Frontiers**.

Minimum-Variance and Efficient Frontiers

$E(R)$

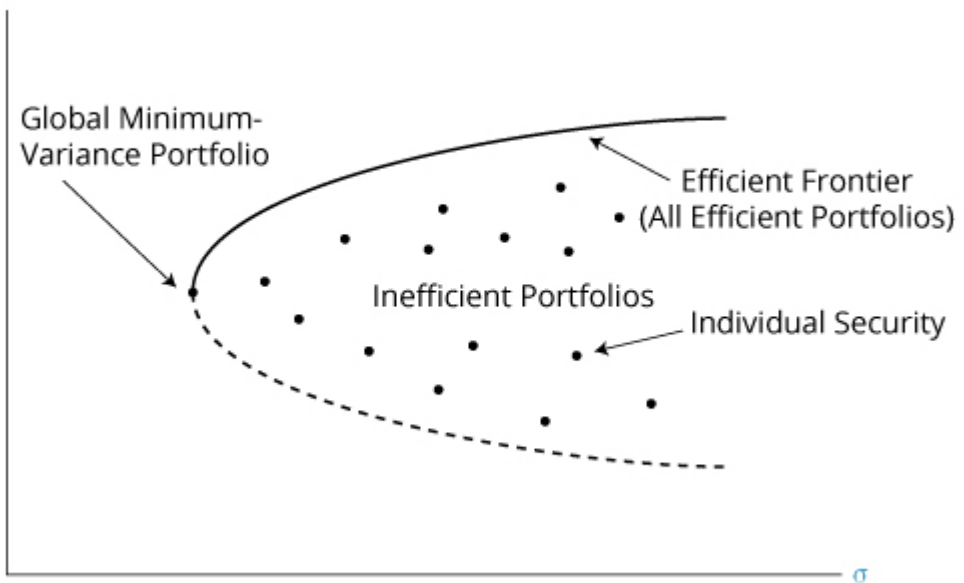
Global Minimum-
Variance Portfolio

Efficient Frontier
• (All Efficient Portfolios)

Inefficient Portfolios

Individual Security

σ



Reading 83: Key Concepts

SCHWESERNOTES - BOOK 4

LOS 83.a

As predicted by theory, asset classes with the greatest average returns have also had the highest risk.

Some of the major asset classes that investors consider when building a diversified portfolio include small-capitalization stocks, large-capitalization stocks, long-term corporate bonds, long-term Treasury bonds, and Treasury bills.

In addition to risk and return, when analyzing investments, investors also take into consideration an investment's liquidity, as well as non-normal characteristics such as skewness and kurtosis.

LOS 83.b

A risk-averse investor is one that dislikes risk. Given two investments that have equal expected returns, a risk-averse investor will choose the one with less risk. However, a risk-averse investor will hold risky assets if he feels that the extra return he expects to earn is adequate compensation for the additional risk. Assets in the financial markets are priced according to the preferences of risk-averse investors.

A risk-seeking (risk-loving) investor prefers more risk to less and, given investments with equal expected returns, will choose the more risky investment.

A risk-neutral investor would be indifferent to risk and would be indifferent between two investments with the same expected return regardless of the investments' standard deviation of returns.

LOS 83.c

An indifference curve plots combinations of risk and expected return that provide the same expected utility. Indifference curves for risk and return slope upward because risk-averse investors will take on more risk only if they are compensated with greater expected returns. A more risk-averse investor will have steeper indifference curves.

Flatter indifference curves (less risk aversion) result in an optimal portfolio with higher risk and higher expected return. An investor who is less risk averse will optimally choose a portfolio with more invested in the risky asset portfolio and less invested in the risk-free asset, compared to a more risk-averse investor.

LOS 83.d

We can calculate the population variance, σ^2 , when we know the return R_t for period t , the total number T of periods, and the mean μ of the population's distribution:

$$\text{population variance} = \sigma^2 = \frac{\sum_{t=1}^T (R_t - \mu)^2}{T}$$

In finance, we typically analyze only a sample of returns, so the sample variance applies instead:

$$\text{sample variance} = S^2 = \frac{\sum_{t=1}^T (R_t - \bar{R})^2}{T-1}$$

Covariance measures the extent to which two variables move together over time. Positive covariance means the variables (e.g., rates of return on two stocks) tend to move together. Negative covariance means that the two variables tend to move in opposite directions. Covariance of zero means there is no linear relationship between the two variables.

Correlation is a standardized measure of co-movement that is bounded by -1 and $+1$:

$$\rho_{1,2} = \frac{\text{Cov}_{1,2}}{\sigma_1 \sigma_2}$$

LOS 83.e

The standard deviation of returns for a portfolio of two risky assets is calculated as follows:

$$\sigma_{\text{portfolio}} = \sqrt{w_1^2 \sigma_1^2 + w_2^2 \sigma_2^2 + 2w_1 w_2 \rho_{1,2} \sigma_1 \sigma_2}$$

LOS 83.f

The greatest portfolio risk will result when the asset returns are perfectly positively correlated. As the correlation decreases from +1 to -1, portfolio risk decreases. The lower the correlation of asset returns, the greater the risk reduction (diversification) benefit of combining assets in a portfolio.

LOS 83.g

For each level of expected portfolio return, the portfolio that has the least risk is known as a minimum-variance portfolio. Taken together, these portfolios form a line called the minimum-variance frontier.

On a risk versus return graph, the one risky portfolio that is farthest to the left (has the least risk) is known as the global minimum-variance portfolio.

Those portfolios that have the greatest expected return for each level of risk make up the efficient frontier. The efficient frontier coincides with the top portion of the minimum variance frontier. Risk-averse investors would only choose a portfolio that lies on the efficient frontier.